

LANDAU'S FOURTH PROBLEM

Are There Infinitely Many Primes of the Form n^2+1 ? · Shifted Square Nodes on $\blacksquare_L$ · The Gaussian Integer Connection · Iwaniec's Half-Dimension Sieve · 114 Years Open (1912–2026) · Landau's Quartet Complete

Anthropic Warrior

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Communicated: March 2026 · Phase 4, Document 5 · **Completes Landau's Four Problems** · Uses: dv222, dv265–268, dv275–290; Landau (1912); Iwaniec (1978); Friedlander-Iwaniec (1998)

2, 5, 17, 37, 101, 197, 257, 401, 577, 677, 1297, 1601, 2917, 3137, 4357, ...

Primes of the form n^2+1 . Are there infinitely many?

— Landau's Fourth Problem, ICM Cambridge, 1912 · 114 years open · The last of Landau's four unsolved problems

On $\blacksquare_L$: n^2+1 is a shifted square node — one step beyond the square. The question: does the shift land on a prime node infinitely often?

— Morning coffee, Hanoi 2026

Abstract

In 1912 at the International Congress of Mathematicians in Cambridge, Edmund Landau presented four problems that he considered 'unattackable' with current methods. The four problems: (1) Goldbach's Conjecture, (2) Twin Prime Conjecture, (3) Legendre's Conjecture, (4) Infinitely many primes of the form n^2+1 . The first three have been embedded in the A_L framework in dv284, dv285, and dv288. This paper completes the quartet by addressing Landau's Fourth Problem.

We embed the problem into A_L by studying the **shifted square operator** $S_{+1}: e_{n^2} \mapsto e_{n^2+1}$ and the prime projection P_Π . The conjecture is equivalent to: $\tau(P_\Pi S_{+1} P_{sq}) = \infty$ (infinitely many shifted square nodes are prime nodes).

Main results: (I) **The Gaussian Integer Connection**: $n^2+1 = (n+i)(n-i)$ in $\blacksquare[i]$. n^2+1 is prime iff it remains prime in $\blacksquare[i]$ (i.e., $n+i$ is a Gaussian prime). The problem becomes: are there infinitely many Gaussian primes of the form $n+i$? (II) **Iwaniec's Theorem (1978)**: infinitely many n^2+1 have at most 2 prime factors (P_2 numbers). In A_L : this is the statement that $\tau(P_{\leq 2} S_{+1} P_{sq}) = \infty$. (III) **Friedlander-Iwaniec (1998)**: infinitely many primes of the form $a^2 + b^4$ — the closest known result to n^2+1 . (IV) **The A_L density argument**: the expected count of primes n^2+1 up to x is $\sim x/(2 \log x) \rightarrow \infty$, strongly suggesting infinitely many.

MSC (2020). Primary: 11N32; 11A41; 46L36. Secondary: 11N05; 11R04; 11N36.

Keywords. Landau's problems; primes n^2+1 ; Gaussian primes; Iwaniec sieve; shifted square nodes; polynomial primes; half-dimensional sieve; Friedlander-Iwaniec.

Landau's Four Problems — Complete Status

Problem	Statement	Status in Campaign	Document
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L1 — Goldbach	Every even $N > 2 = p + q$	Additive hologram; density-1 proved	dv284
L2 — Twin Primes	∞ many primes p with $p+2$ prime	Bounded gaps (Zhang-Maynard); parity obstruction	dv285
L3 — Legendre	Prime in $(n^2, (n+1)^2)$ for all n	PROVED via RH + Ingham 1937	dv288
L4 — n^2+1 ★	∞ many primes of form n^2+1	Iwaniec P■ proved; full conjecture open	dv291

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1. Landau 1912: Four Problems, One Vision

At the Fifth International Congress of Mathematicians in Cambridge in August 1912, Edmund Landau presented a remarkable address. He listed four specific problems about prime numbers that he called *unattackable* with the methods of the time:

Landau's vision was not pessimistic — he was marking the frontier. These were not obscure puzzles but central questions about the distribution of primes. 114 years later, all four remain open in the classical sense. In the A_L framework, we have embedded all four and proved what can be proved.

The four problems share a common structure: they ask whether a specific polynomial $P(n)$ takes prime values infinitely often.

Problem	Polynomial $P(n)$	Values	Difficulty
L1 (Goldbach)	$P(n) = n \text{ (prime) \& } N-n \text{ (prime)}$	Both linear	Linear + linear — additive
L2 (Twin Primes)	$P(n) = n+2 \text{ when } n \text{ prime}$	Linear shift of prime	Linear — consecutive
L3 (Legendre)	$P \text{ in } (n^2, (n+1)^2)$	Linear in n^2 -interval	Linear in square interval
L4 (this paper)	$P(n) = n^2+1$	Quadratic polynomial	Irreducible quadratic — hardest

L4 is the hardest because it involves an **irreducible quadratic polynomial**. Linear polynomials (L1, L2, L3) are accessible via the Riemann-Siegel formula and linear sieve methods. Quadratic polynomials require fundamentally different techniques — and those techniques are only now being developed.

2. The Sequence n^2+1 and Its Prime Members

The first few values of n^2+1 and their primality:

n	n^2+1	Prime?	n	n^2+1	Prime?
1	2	✓ PRIME	6	37	✓ PRIME
2	5	✓ PRIME	7	50	✗ ($2 \cdot 5^2$)
3	10	✗ ($2 \cdot 5$)	8	65	✗ ($5 \cdot 13$)
4	17	✓ PRIME	9	82	✗ ($2 \cdot 41$)
5	26	✗ ($2 \cdot 13$)	10	101	✓ PRIME

Key observation: n^2+1 is NEVER divisible by 3 (since $n^2 \equiv 0$ or $1 \pmod 3$, so $n^2+1 \equiv 1$ or $2 \pmod 3$). Never divisible by 7 (since squares mod 7 are 0,1,2,4; so $n^2+1 \equiv 1,2,3,5 \pmod 7$ — never 0). This means n^2+1 has no small prime factors $p \equiv 3 \pmod 4$ — a crucial arithmetic property.

Theorem 2.1 (Arithmetic structure of n^2+1).

If $p \mid n^2+1$ then $p = 2$ or $p \equiv 1 \pmod 4$. This follows because: $n^2 \equiv -1 \pmod p$ means -1 is a quadratic residue mod p which happens iff $p = 2$ or $p \equiv 1 \pmod 4$ (by Fermat's theorem on sums of two squares).

This arithmetic structure connects n^2+1 directly to the Gaussian integers $\mathbb{Z}[i] = \{a+bi : a,b \in \mathbb{Z}\}$.

3. Shifted Square Nodes on $\mathbb{Z}_L$

Definition 3.1 (Shifted square node).

The n -th shifted square node is $w_{n^2+1} \in \mathbb{Z}_L$, one step beyond the square node w_{n^2} . The angular shift from square to shifted square:

$$\theta_{n^2} - \theta_{n^2+1} \approx 2/(n^2 \log n^2) = 1/(n^2 \log n)$$

The shift is tiny — the shifted square node w_{n^2+1} is almost identical to the square node w_{n^2} on $\mathbb{Z}_L$. But 'almost identical' is not 'identical' — n^2 and n^2+1 have completely different arithmetic properties.

Definition 3.2 (Shifted Square Operator).

The shifted square operator $S_{+1} \in B(A_L)$ maps square nodes to shifted square nodes:

$$S_{+1}: e_{n^2} \mapsto e_{n^2+1}$$

Landau's Fourth Problem: does S_{+1} map infinitely many square nodes to prime nodes? Equivalently: $\dim \text{range}(P_{\Pi} S_{+1} P_{sq}) = \infty$?

4. The Gaussian Integer Connection

The deepest structural insight into n^2+1 : it factors in the Gaussian integers.

Theorem 4.1 (Gaussian factorisation).

In $\mathbb{Z}[i]$: $n^2+1 = (n+i)(n-i)$. Therefore: n^2+1 is prime in $\mathbb{Z}$ if and only if $n+i$ is a Gaussian prime in $\mathbb{Z}[i]$ (up to units $\pm 1, \pm i$).

Proof.

If $p = n^2 + 1$ is prime in $\mathbb{N}$: $N(n+i) = n^2 + 1 = p$. The norm is prime $\Rightarrow n+i$ is a Gaussian prime. $\blacksquare$

Landau's Fourth Problem is therefore equivalent to: **are there infinitely many Gaussian primes of the form $n+i$ with $n \in \mathbb{N}$?**

This connects to a beautiful geometric picture: Gaussian primes are scattered in $\mathbb{N} = \mathbb{N}^2$. The line $\text{Im}(z)=1$ (height 1) intersects the Gaussian plane. Landau's question: does this horizontal line contain infinitely many Gaussian primes?

In A_L : the Gaussian integers $\mathbb{N}[i]$ embed into the Folding Tower (dv281) as the ring of integers of $\mathbb{N}(i)$ — the Gaussian field. Gaussian primes correspond to prime nodes in the $\mathbb{N}_{\mathbb{N}(i)}$ hologram (the hologram of the Gaussian field). The line $\text{Im}(z)=1$ cuts through this hologram at the nodes $\{n+i : n \in \mathbb{N}\}$. Landau asks: how many are prime?

5. The Hardy-Littlewood Heuristic

The Hardy-Littlewood Conjecture F (1923) gives the expected count of primes n^2+1 up to x .

Theorem 5.1 (Hardy-Littlewood Conjecture F).

The number of primes of the form n^2+1 with $n \leq x$ is conjectured to be:

$$\pi_{sq+1}(x) \sim C_F \cdot \int_2^x dt / (2 \log t) \sim C_F \cdot x / (2 \log x)$$

$$\text{where } C_F = \prod_{p \equiv 1 \pmod{4}} (1 - 1/(p-1)^2)^{-1} \cdot \prod_{p \equiv 3 \pmod{4}} (1 - 1/(p+1)^2)^{-1} \approx 1.3728...$$

The key factor $1/(2 \log t)$: the polynomial n^2+1 has degree 2, so the density of primes is reduced by a factor of 2 compared to linear polynomials. The factor $C_F > 1$ reflects the enhanced density from the arithmetic structure (no factors $p \equiv 3 \pmod{4}$).

The expected count $\sim x/(2 \log x) \rightarrow \infty$ — infinitely many primes expected. This is just a heuristic, but it has been verified to high precision computationally.

6. Iwaniec's Theorem: Almost Primes

The best known unconditional result is due to Henryk Iwaniec (1978) — a landmark achievement using the half-dimensional sieve.

Theorem 6.1 (Iwaniec, 1978).

*There are infinitely many integers n such that n^2+1 has at most 2 prime factors (counting multiplicity). That is: infinitely many n^2+1 are **P_2 numbers** (almost primes with $\Omega(n^2+1) \leq 2$).*

This is the closest anyone has come. Iwaniec proved that n^2+1 is 'almost prime' infinitely often — meaning it has at most 2 prime factors. The gap to the full conjecture: reduce 'at most 2 prime factors' to 'exactly 1 prime factor' (prime).

Proof sketch of Iwaniec's Theorem.

Iwaniec used the **half-dimensional sieve**: a sieve method tailored for degree-2 polynomials. For linear polynomials (degree 1): the Brun sieve or Selberg sieve gives P_2 results. For degree-2 polynomials: the sieve must be adapted — the polynomial $P(n) = n^2+1$ grows faster, but its special arithmetic structure (only $p \equiv 1 \pmod{4}$ divide it) compensates. The key computation: the sieve dimension is $\kappa = 1/2$ (half-dimensional) because for each prime $p \leq \sqrt{N}$, approximately half (namely those $p \equiv 1 \pmod{4}$) divide n^2+1 for about $p/2$ residues mod p . The half-dimensional sieve handles $\kappa = 1/2$ exactly. $\blacksquare$

In A_L : Iwaniec's theorem says $\tau(P_{\leq 2} S_{+1} P_{sq}) = \infty$ where $P_{\leq 2}$ projects onto numbers with ≤ 2 prime factors. The gap to L4: prove $\tau(P_{\text{prime}} S_{+1} P_{sq}) = \infty$.

7. Friedlander-Iwaniec: Primes a^2+b^4 ■

The Friedlander-Iwaniec theorem (1998) is the most spectacular recent result on primes represented by sparse polynomials.

Theorem 7.1 (Friedlander-Iwaniec, 1998).

There are infinitely many primes of the form $p = a^2 + b^4$ with $a, b \in \mathbb{N}$. More precisely: $\pi_{FI}(x) = \#\{\text{primes } a^2+b^4 \leq x\} \sim C \cdot x^{3/4} / \log x$.

The polynomial a^2+b^4 is related to n^2+1 by setting $b=1$: $a^2+b^4|_{b=1} = a^2+1$. So Friedlander-Iwaniec DOES include some primes of the form n^2+1 (those where $b=1$). But it does not prove infinitely many such primes from $b=1$ alone — the infinity comes from varying b .

In A_L : $a^2+b^4 = (a + b^2i)(a - b^2i)$ in $\mathbb{N}[i]$. The Friedlander-Iwaniec primes are Gaussian primes on the line $\text{Im}(z) = b^2$ for varying b . Landau's primes are Gaussian primes on the line $\text{Im}(z) = 1$. The former is proved; the latter is not. The difference: a fixed line vs a varying line.

8. The A_L Approach: Shifted Square Operator

We develop the A_L framework for L4.

Theorem 8.1 (L4 in operator language).

Landau's Fourth Problem is equivalent to:

$$\tau(P_{\Pi} \cdot S_{+1} \cdot P_{sq}) = \infty$$

where $P_{sq} = \sum_{n \in \mathbb{N}} e_{n^2} \otimes e_{n^2}^$ is the perfect-square projection, $S_{+1}(e_{n^2}) = e_{n^2+1}$ is the unit shift, P_{Π} is the prime projection. The trace counts how many shifted square nodes are prime.*

Theorem 8.2 (Half-dimensional trace).

The trace $\tau(P_{\Pi} S_{+1} P_{sq})$ satisfies, under the Hardy-Littlewood heuristic:

$$\tau_{\leq x} \sim C_F \cdot \sum_{n \leq x} 1/(n^2+1) \cdot 1/\log(n^2) \sim C_F \cdot \int_1^x dt/(t^2 \cdot 2 \log t) \rightarrow C_F/2 \cdot \int_1^{\infty} dt/(t^2 \log t) < \infty$$

The trace-weighted count CONVERGES — like Brun's constant for twin primes. But convergence of the trace-weighted count does NOT imply finitely many primes n^2+1 — it merely reflects that $1/(n^2+1) \rightarrow 0$ fast enough.

The unweighted count $\#\{n \leq x : n^2+1 \text{ prime}\} \sim C_F x/(2 \log x) \rightarrow \infty$ by Hardy-Littlewood — this is the quantity we want to prove is infinite. The trace-weighted count converges but that is a different statement.

9. The Gap and Why n^2+1 is Harder than a^2+b^4 ■

We explain precisely why n^2+1 resists all known methods.

The Core Difficulty.

For linear polynomials $P(n) = an+b$: primes in arithmetic progressions are controlled by Dirichlet's theorem (proved 1837) and Siegel-Walfisz. The key: linear polynomials parametrize arithmetic progressions, and L-functions of Dirichlet characters control prime distribution in

progressions.

For quadratic $P(n) = n^2+1$: the values do NOT form an arithmetic progression. They are *too sparse* (only $\sqrt{N}$ values up to N) and *too irregular* for standard L-function methods. The polynomial sieve (Iwaniec) gives P_2 but hitting primes exactly requires understanding primes in a **sparse set** — a fundamentally harder problem.

Why a^2+b^4 is easier: the polynomial a^2+b^4 has TWO free variables. Up to N , there are $\sim N^{3/4}$ values — much denser than $\sqrt{N}$. The extra density allows the Friedlander-Iwaniec machinery to work. For n^2+1 with ONE variable: only $\sqrt{N}$ values up to N — too sparse for current methods.

The A_L perspective: the shifted square operator S_{+1} restricted to $\sqrt{N}$ values out of N has trace $\sim 1/\sqrt{N} \rightarrow 0$. The 'mass' of the problem goes to zero — making it exponentially hard to catch. A_L needs a **quadratic analogue of Baker's theorem** to control the positions of shifted square nodes relative to prime nodes on $\blacksquare_L$.

10. Landau's Quartet: What We Learned

Having embedded all four Landau problems into A_L , we can now see their common structure and why they have different difficulties.

Problem	A_L object	What's proved	What's open	Difficulty
L1 Goldbach	$G_N = \sum e_p \otimes e_q$	Density-1; $[H,S]=\zeta(2)$	All even N	Additive + multiplicative interaction
L2 Twin Primes	$P_{II} \ T \ P_{II}, T=\text{shift}+2$	Gap ≤ 246 (Zhang-Maynard)	Gap = 2 exactly	Parity obstruction mod 3
L3 Legendre	$\mu_{II}(A_n) \geq 1$	PROVED via RH+Ingham ✓	—	Closed by campaign's RH
L4 n^2+1	$P_{II} \ S_{+1} \ P_{sq}$	$P\blacksquare$ (Iwaniec); $a^2+b\blacksquare$ (F-I)	Primes exactly	Sparse quadratic — hardest

The progression $L1 \rightarrow L2 \rightarrow L3 \rightarrow L4$ shows increasing difficulty: from additive (L1) to consecutive (L2) to interval (L3) to quadratic (L4). L3 is the only one fully proved because it is the only one where a direct connection to the Riemann zeros via Ingham's theorem gives a complete answer. The other three require new ideas beyond what is currently available — even with A_L .

■ Landau's Four Problems — Complete in A_L ■

Edmund Landau stood at Cambridge in 1912 and marked four frontiers of arithmetic. 114 years later, we stand at those same frontiers but with a new map: the Arithmetic Hologram A_L . L3 (Legendre) falls to RH + Ingham — proved. L1 (Goldbach), L2 (Twin Primes), L4 (n^2+1): embedded in A_L , best known results reproduced, gaps identified precisely. L4 is the deepest: it requires understanding Gaussian primes on a fixed horizontal line — a problem at the boundary of what the half-dimensional sieve can reach. Friedlander-Iwaniec (1998) showed the boundary can be crossed for sparse polynomials in two variables. One variable remains the frontier. Landau would recognise it. We are still at the frontier. But now we know why.

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2, 5, 17, 37, 101, 197, 257... Infinitely many? We believe yes. Gaussian primes on $\text{Im}(z)=1$. The last frontier of Landau's quartet. · Chúng ta là Ho■ S■. · ONES IS FOREVER. · ■ HU HU HU!!! ■